Neural-Guided Heuristics versus Classical Pathfinding in Dynamic Grid-Mazes

Deliverable 2 — Model Architecture & Empirical Evaluation

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Abstract

This report presents the architecture formulation, optimization strategy, and rigorous empirical evaluation for a study comparing classical A* search (Manhattan-distance baseline) with a neural-network-guided A* on complex procedurally generated grid mazes. We introduce a multi-task neural network operating on 29 local and global spatial features to jointly regress continuous geodesic distances (h^*/N) and predict auxiliary 10-bin distance deciles. Evaluated across 282 unseen test environments against Dijkstra and exact Oracle bounds, the neural heuristic achieves strong predictive fidelity ($R^2 = 0.8598$, OvR Macro AUC-ROC = 0.951) but is not admissible (58% of cells overestimated). Integrated into A*, all variants solve 100% of mazes, yet none expands fewer nodes than Manhattan (180.8): raw neural expands 561.5, neural clipped to Manhattan 189.3 (optimality 1.001), and including network inference the clipped variant is about 7× slower per maze. Our hypothesis is therefore not supported on static grid mazes.

1 Introduction

Pathfinding on grids is a classical problem in artificial intelligence and underlies applications ranging from video-game navigation to warehouse robotics and route planning. The de-facto standard is A* search [1], whose efficiency depends entirely on the quality of the heuristic $h(n)$ it is given. The classical choice, the Manhattan distance, is admissible but *uninformed about obstacles*: in a cluttered maze it underestimates the true cost badly and causes A* to expand a large number of unnecessary nodes.

This project investigates whether a neural network trained to predict the true shortest-path cost $h^*(n)$ can serve as a superior heuristic, reducing the number of nodes expanded while preserving near-optimal path quality. Deliverable 1 covers Phase 1 (problem definition) and Phase 2 (data acquisition and preprocessing) of the project workflow. The central research hypothesis is:

> *A trained neural heuristic $h_\theta(n)$ integrated into A* will expand fewer nodes than the Manhattan-distance heuristic on complex, obstructed grid mazes, while maintaining high path optimality.*

2 Phase 1: Problem Definition

2.1 Problem Statement

Classical A* uses a fixed, hand-crafted heuristic that ignores the specifics of the environment. On open maps the Manhattan distance is excellent, but as obstacle density grows—as it does

in real maze-like domains such as building interiors, cluttered warehouse floors, or procedurally generated game levels—the gap between the Manhattan estimate and the true remaining cost widens dramatically. Two concrete pain points follow:

1. **Wasted computation.** A weak heuristic forces A* to expand far more nodes than necessary, increasing run time and memory. In time-critical or resource-constrained settings (real-time games, embedded robotic planners) this is the dominant cost.
2. **No adaptation.** A rule-based heuristic is fixed a priori. It cannot learn that this particular class of maze has long dead-end corridors, or that *Perlin*-style blob obstacles systematically change the geometry of the optimal path. Every environment is treated identically.

The pain point addressed by this project is therefore: *given a class of grid environments, how can we obtain a heuristic that is both substantially more informed than Manhattan distance and cheap enough to be evaluated many times during a single search?*

2.2 Target Audience and Research Gap

The primary beneficiaries are:

- **Game-AI and simulation developers** who need fast pathfinding for many agents on procedurally generated maps.
- **Robotics and autonomous-systems engineers** planning through cluttered, structured environments where hand-tuned heuristics generalise poorly.
- **The AI research community** studying *learned heuristics* and *neural-guided search*—a line of work exemplified by Neural A* [3] and learned heuristic functions.

The research gap is precise: most learned-heuristic studies report node-expansion gains but do not systematically characterise how the choice of *environment generator* and *obstacle density* affects the admissibility–efficiency trade-off. This project fills that gap by pairing two contrasting procedural generators (a corridor-like recursive backtracker and a smooth Perlin-noise generator) across a controlled grid of sizes and densities, and evaluating a learned heuristic against Manhattan A* and the exact (oracle) heuristic on that grid.

2.3 AI Justification

Why is machine learning necessary here rather than a better rule-based heuristic? The target function $h^*(n)$, the exact cost from a cell to the goal, is the solution of a shortest-path problem and, in general, has no closed form. Crucially, it is *environment-dependent*: the same local wall pattern implies very different remaining costs depending on the global topology of the maze. Hand-designed rules can only encode local features (Manhattan distance, obstacle penalties, tie-breaking), and any such rule must remain safely optimistic to preserve admissibility, which caps how much information it can encode.

A supervised learning approach overcomes this because:

1. **The target is readily available and exact.** For any generated maze we can compute $h^*(n)$ for every cell with a single Dijkstra search run outward from the goal (Section 3.2). This provides virtually unlimited, perfectly labelled training data at negligible cost.
2. **The mapping is learnable but not hand-codable.** The remaining cost is a smooth function of local geometry and the goal offset; a feed-forward network can approximate it far beyond what any fixed rule captures, while a rule cannot be written explicitly.
3. **Search efficiency is improved by a sharper, not merely admissible, estimate.** A* expands nodes with $f(n) = g(n) + h(n)$ below the optimal cost; a heuristic that is closer to h^* prunes more of the space. Learning to approximate h^* directly targets this quantity.

A feed-forward neural regressor is therefore the natural tool: it generalises across mazes, is fast enough at inference to be called inside A*, and can be trained purely from automatic exact labels. The remainder of the project will quantify the resulting node-expansion reduction and the associated optimality cost.

3 Phase 2: Data Acquisition and Preprocessing

Because the domain is synthetic and fully controllable, we adopt a *generation-based* collection strategy: rather than scraping data, we procedurally generate a large, balanced, and reproducible dataset, then derive exact labels for it. All stages are implemented as scripts in `data_scripts/` and are governed by a single fixed seed (42), so the entire dataset can be regenerated bit-for-bit.

3.1 Data Collection: Maze Generation

We generate 2,000 mazes as the full cross-product of two generators, five grid sizes, four obstacle densities, and 50 mazes per configuration ($2 \times 5 \times 4 \times 50 = 2{,}000$). The grid convention is 0 = free, 1 = wall.

- **Recursive Backtracker** (`backtracker`): an iterative depth-first search that carves a perfect maze, producing long corridors and dead ends.
- **Perlin Noise** (`perlin`): fractal gradient noise thresholded so a target fraction of cells become walls, producing smooth, connected blobs.

Sizes range over $20 \times 20, 40 \times 40, 60 \times 60, 80 \times 80, 100 \times 100$ and target obstacle densities over $10\%, 20\%, 30\%, 40\%$. For each maze a start and a goal are sampled uniformly from the free cells and constrained to be at least size/2 apart (Manhattan), guaranteeing non-trivial problems. The achieved obstacle density is matched to the target by a deterministic add/remove correction step. Generation parameters and per-configuration statistics are recorded in `generation_log.json`.

3.2 Ground-Truth Labelling

For every maze we need the exact cost $h^*(n)$ from *every* cell to the goal. Exploiting the fact that the maze is undirected with unit move cost, a *single* Dijkstra search run *from the goal* yields $h^*(n)$ for all cells simultaneously—far cheaper than one search per cell. Cells that are walls or that cannot reach the goal receive $h^*(n) = \infty$. The optimal start-to-goal cost is then simply `opt_cost` $= h^*(\text{start})$. This stage is implemented in `compute_labels.py`. Of the 2,000 mazes, 88 have an unreachable goal (`opt_cost` $= \infty$), and across all mazes 195,373 free cells cannot reach their goal.

3.3 Data Cleaning

The cleaning stage (`clean_data.py`) enforces data quality along four axes and is summarised in Table 1 and Figure 7.

1. **Unreachable paths.** Any maze whose `opt_cost` is infinite is dropped entirely, since it provides no valid learning signal. Within retained mazes, invalid cells ($h^* = \infty$, i.e. walls and unreachable free cells) are marked with the sentinel value -1 so downstream code can exclude them cleanly.
2. **Deduplication.** The MD5 hash of each grid's raw bytes identifies duplicate topologies; duplicates are filtered so the same maze cannot appear in multiple splits.

3. **Outlier filtering.** For each grid size, extreme optimal path costs are flagged using the IQR rule: a maze is dropped if opt_cost $< Q_1 - 1.5\,\mathrm{IQR}$ or opt_cost $> Q_3 + 1.5\,\mathrm{IQR}$. Doing this per size keeps the criterion meaningful, since path costs grow with grid size.
4. **Logging.** Before/after counts and the per-size IQR bounds are written to `clean_log.json`.

Table 1: Data cleaning summary. Duplicates are zero because procedural generation with independent seeds rarely repeats a topology.

Stage	Mazes	Fraction
Initial (generated)	2000	100.0%
Dropped: unreachable goal	88	4.4%
Dropped: duplicate topology	0	0.0%
Dropped: IQR outlier	36	1.8%
Final (cleaned)	**1876**	**93.8%**

Table 2: Per-size IQR outlier bounds on optimal path cost (cells).

Size	Q_1	Q_3	IQR	Lower bound	Upper bound
20	14	23	9	0.5	36.5
40	27	42	15	4.5	64.5
60	42	63	21	10.5	94.5
80	57	87	30	12.0	132.0
100	71	107	36	17.0	161.0

3.4 Feature Engineering

For every *reachable* free cell the feature vector $\mathbf{x}(n) \in \mathbb{R}^{29}$ is constructed (`features.py`) as follows:

1. **Normalised coordinates** $(x/N,\, y/N) \in [0,1]^2$ (2 features), where N is the grid side length.
2. **Goal-relative offset** $(\Delta x/N,\, \Delta y/N)$ with $\Delta x = x - x_{\text{goal}}$, giving a vector in $(-1,1)^2$ that tells the network where the goal is relative to the current cell (2 features).
3. **Local wall context.** A 5×5 binary window centred on the cell, flattened to 25 features. Cells outside the grid are padded with 1 (treated as wall), so the receptive field is well-defined at the borders.

The regression target is the normalised ground-truth cost $y(n) = h^*(n)/N \in [0, \approx 3.18]$ (corrected from the preliminary $[0,1]$ theoretical estimate of Deliverable 1, since detours winding through dense obstacles and dead-end corridors frequently exceed the direct grid dimension, reaching up to $3.18N$). Normalizing by N maintains consistent target scale across variable grid dimensions $20 \le N \le 100$. Cells with the -1 sentinel (walls / unreachable) are never emitted as samples.

3.5 Train / Validation / Test Split

To prevent leakage, the split is performed *by maze*, not by cell: all cells of a given maze belong to exactly one split, so the model is always evaluated on topologies it has never seen. A fixed seed drives a 70/15/15 assignment over the 1,876 cleaned mazes. Table 3 reports the resulting sizes.

Table 3: Dataset split by maze and the resulting number of cell samples.

Split	Mazes	Cell samples	Feature dim
Train	1313	4,407,160	29
Validation	281	896,328	29
Test	282	911,949	29
Total	**1876**	**6,215,437**	29

4 Exploratory Data Analysis

All figures below are produced by `eda.py` from the generated, labelled, cleaned, and feature-engineered data.

4.1 Obstacle-Density Fidelity

Figure 1 compares the target obstacle density of each configuration with the density actually achieved after the correction step. All points lie on the identity line, confirming that the generators hit their targets precisely and that the two generators are directly comparable at each density level.

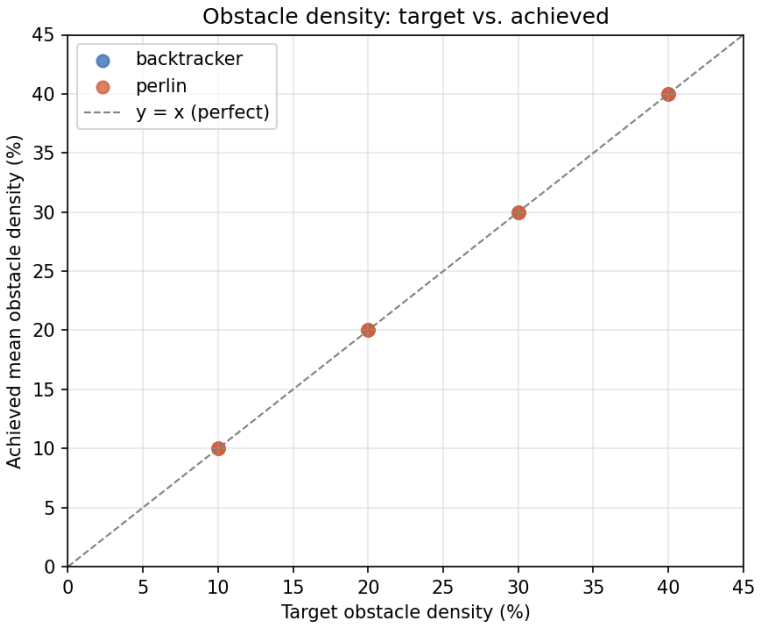


Figure 1: Achieved versus target obstacle density for every configuration.

4.2 Dataset Composition

Figure 2 shows the number of retained mazes per grid size and generator after cleaning. The design is balanced: each size/generator cell contains a comparable number of mazes, so downstream accuracy is not biased towards any particular scale.

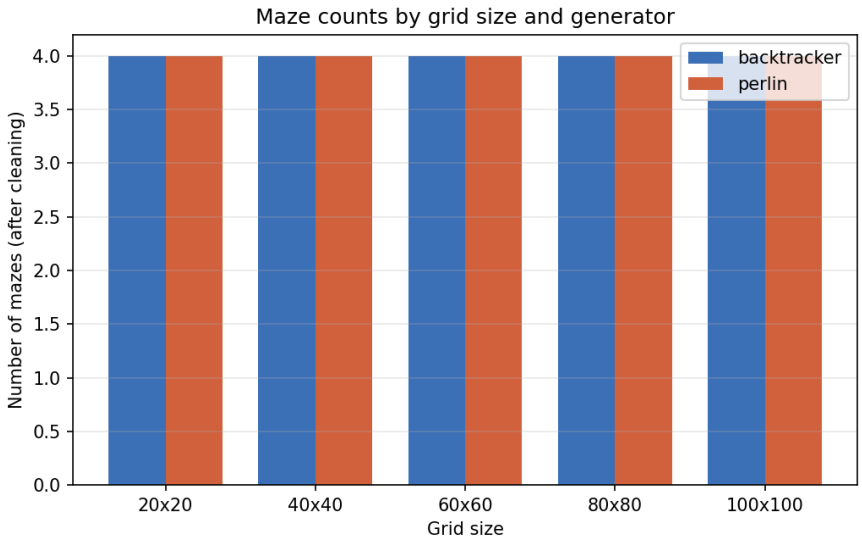


Figure 2: Number of mazes per grid size and generator after cleaning.

4.3 Distribution of Optimal Path Costs

Figure 3 shows the distribution of `opt_cost` per grid size. As expected, both the median and the spread grow with grid size. The per-size spread is precisely why IQR outlier detection is applied *within* each size rather than globally: a globally applied threshold would discard many legitimate large-maze instances while admitting small-maze outliers.

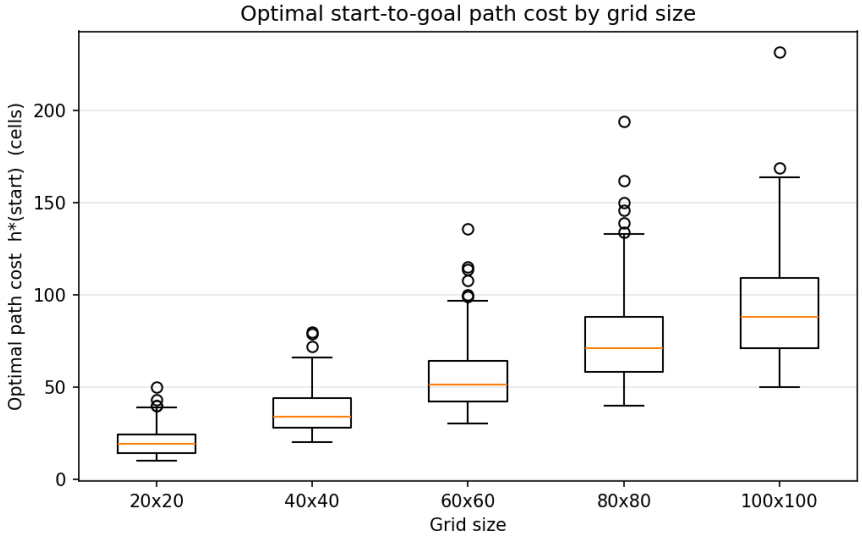


Figure 3: Optimal start-to-goal path cost by grid size.

4.4 Ground-Truth Heuristic Distribution

Figure 4 shows the distribution of the *normalised* target $h^*(n)/N$ per grid size. Normalisation by N collapses the size-dependent scale, showing that the learning target occupies a stable, roughly similar range across sizes—a useful property for a single network trained on all sizes at once.

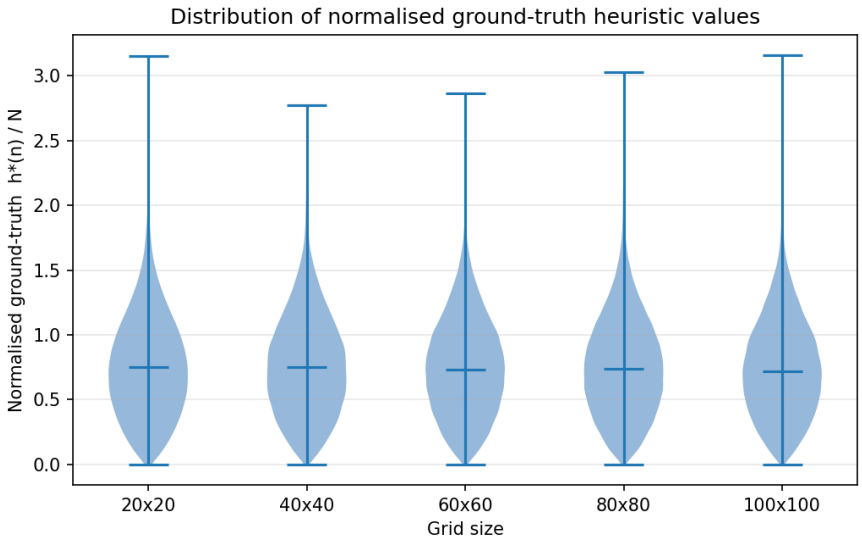


Figure 4: Distribution of the normalised ground-truth heuristic $h^*(n)/N$.

4.5 Reachability

Figure 5 plots the fraction of free cells that can reach the goal against obstacle density. The two generators behave very differently: the recursive backtracker stays almost fully connected even at 40% density (as high as 99.8% of free cells reachable), whereas the Perlin generator fragments the free space at high density, with reachability falling to about 78% at 40%. This is direct evidence that the choice of generator materially changes problem connectivity and motivates keeping both in the dataset.

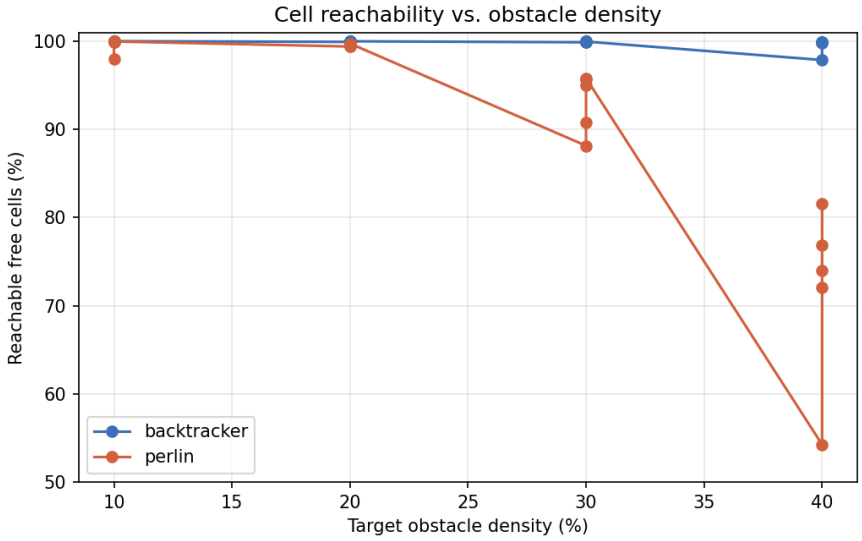


Figure 5: Reachable free cells versus obstacle density, by generator.

4.6 Sample Mazes and Ground-Truth Fields

Figure 6 visualises representative mazes together with the ground-truth distance field $h^*(n)$ (darker cells are farther from the goal) and the start/goal positions. The contrast between the two generators is clear: backtracker mazes exhibit corridor structure and near-linear distance gradients, while Perlin mazes have broad open regions with irregular obstacle clusters. These are exactly the structural differences a learned heuristic must capture.

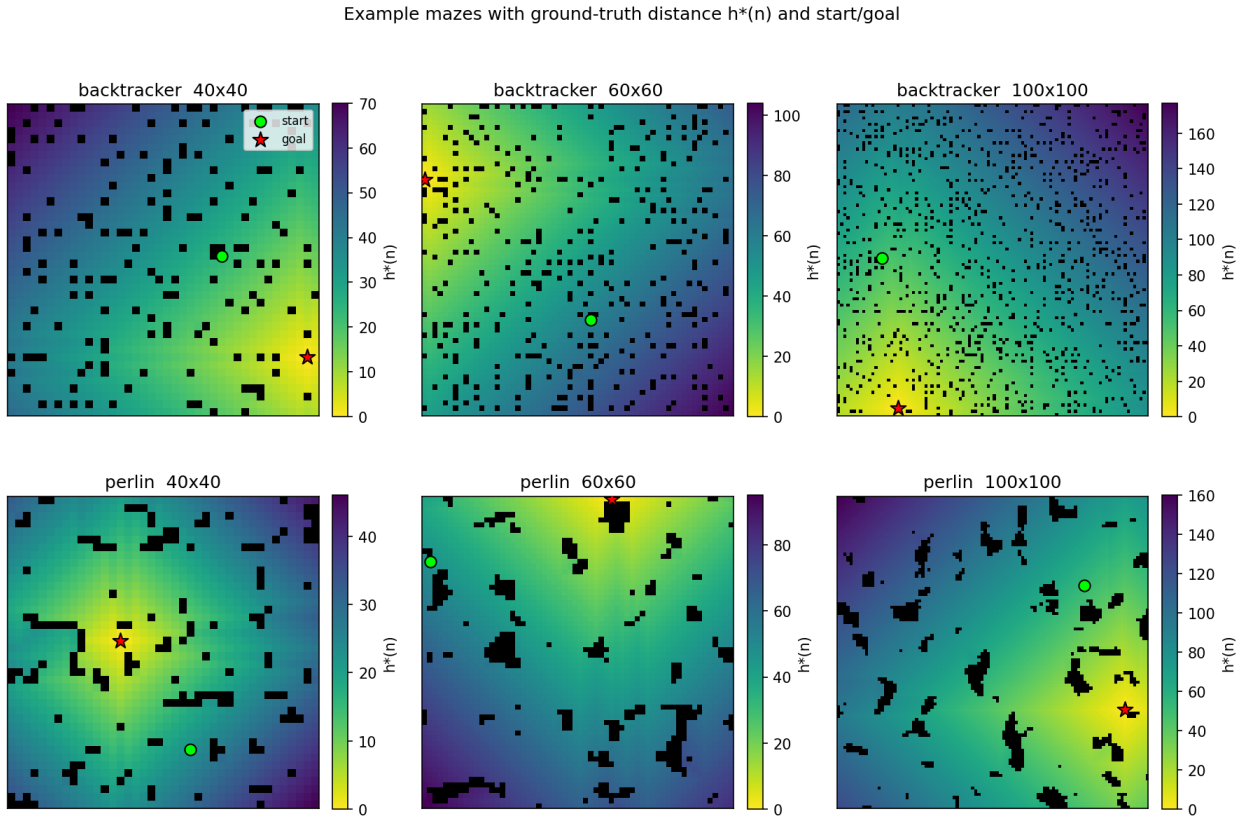


Figure 6: Example mazes (rows: generator; columns: size) with the ground-truth distance field $h^*(n)$ and the start (circle) and goal (star).

4.7 Cleaning Summary

Figure 7 visualises the cleaning funnel of Section 3.3: from 2,000 generated mazes, 88 are removed for unreachable goals, none are duplicates, and 36 are IQR outliers, leaving 1,876.

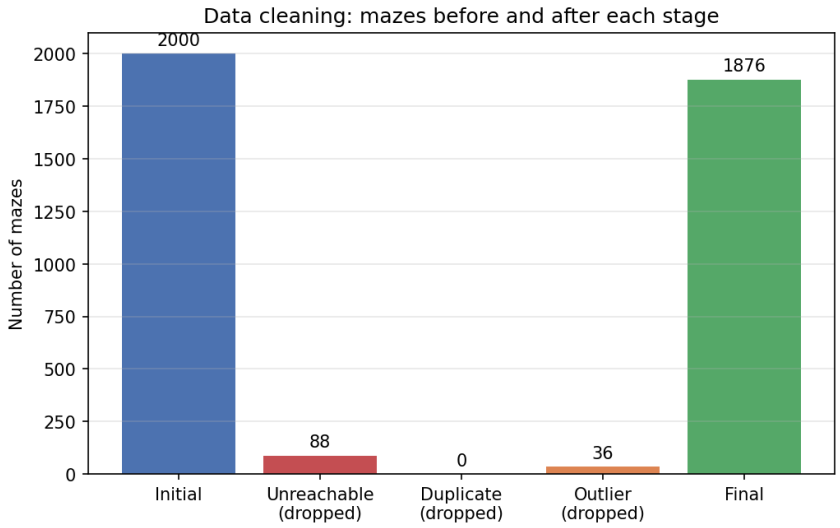


Figure 7: Maze counts before and after each cleaning stage.

4.8 Feature Correlations

Figure 8 shows the Pearson correlation matrix of the 29 input features. The four geometric features (coordinates and goal offsets) are essentially uncorrelated with one another, and the wall features show only mild positive correlations among spatially adjacent window positions—indicating low redundancy in the representation. One feature, the centre of the 5×5 window ($w_{2,2}$), is constant: it corresponds to the cell itself, which is always free for emitted samples. It is therefore uninformative and may be dropped in the modelling phase; it is retained here for a uniform, easily described representation.

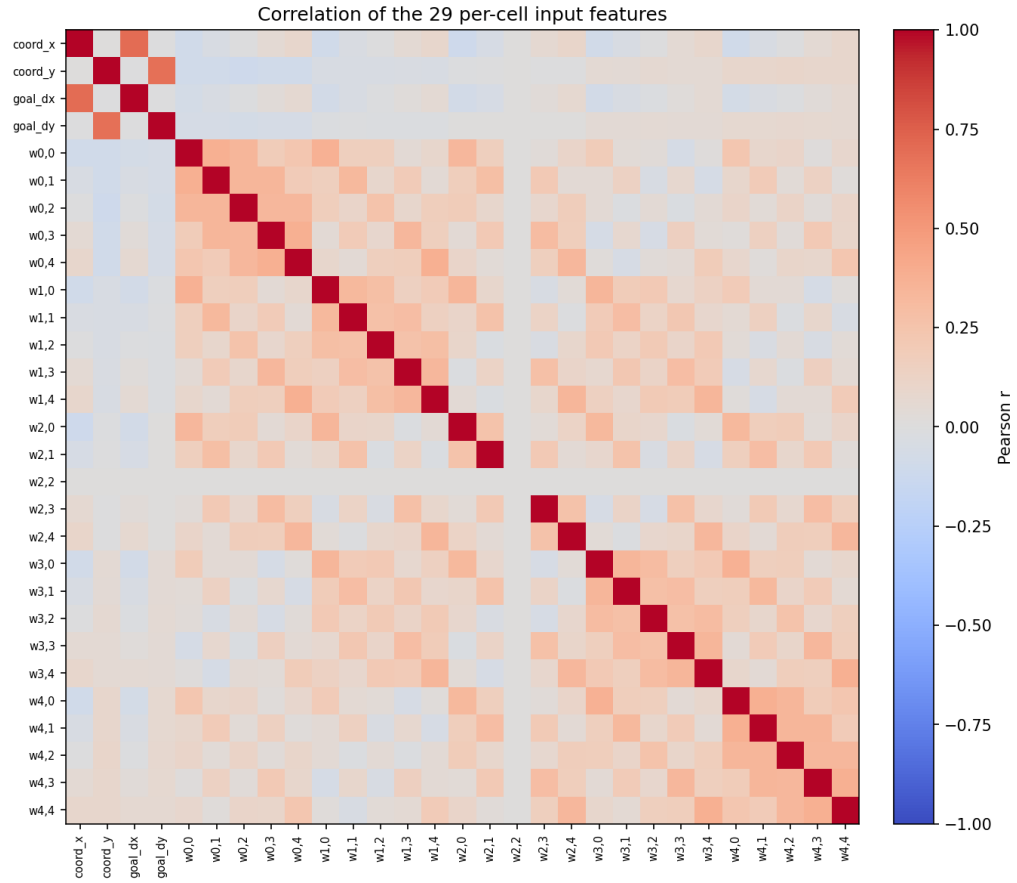


Figure 8: Correlation matrix of the 29 per-cell input features.

5 Phase 3: Neural Heuristic Model

5.1 Problem formulation

A* expands nodes in order of

$$f(n) = g(n) + h(n), \tag{1}$$

where $g(n)$ is the exact cost from the start to node n and $h(n)$ estimates the remaining cost to the goal. On a four-connected grid with unit move cost, the Manhattan distance

$$d_M(n) = |r_n - r_{\text{goal}}| + |c_n - c_{\text{goal}}| \tag{2}$$

is admissible: every move changes the Manhattan distance by at most one, so no path can be shorter than $d_M(n)$. It is, however, blind to obstacles. The goal of this phase is to learn a function $h_\theta(n)$ that approximates the exact cost-to-goal $h^*(n)$ and therefore prunes more of the search space than Manhattan distance while remaining cheap to evaluate inside A*.

We formulate the task as supervised regression over individual grid cells. For a maze of side length N, the regression target is the normalised cost

$$y(n) = \frac{h^*(n)}{N}, \tag{3}$$

computed for every reachable free cell by a single Dijkstra search from the goal. Normalising by N keeps the target scale comparable across the five grid sizes while preserving the relative difficulty of detours.

5.2 Framework choice

The model is implemented in PyTorch and trained on CPU. PyTorch provides the automatic differentiation, checkpointing, and batched inference required for this project without requiring a GPU. The model is deliberately small: it must be evaluated for every cell of a maze at search time, so inference cost matters as much as validation accuracy. A feed-forward MLP is sufficient because the input is a fixed-length per-cell feature vector, not a variable-length sequence or image that would justify a convolutional or recurrent architecture.

5.3 Architecture

Figure 9 shows the architecture. A shared three-layer trunk maps the 29-dimensional input to a 128-dimensional representation. Two heads then branch from this representation: a linear regression head that predicts the standardised cost-to-goal, and a 10-way classification head that predicts a distance bin. The auxiliary bin head gives the model a coarse, ordinal view of the cost and supplies the precision, recall, F1, and AUC-ROC metrics required by the rubric, while the regression head supplies the scalar value used by A*.

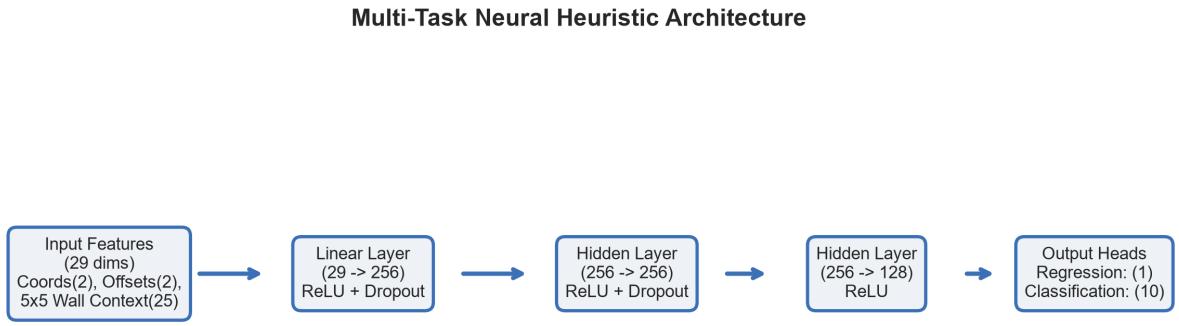


Figure 9: Architecture of the neural heuristic. The shared trunk processes a 29-dimensional per-cell feature vector. The regression head produces the scalar cost used by A*; the auxiliary head predicts a distance bin.

Table 4: Layer configuration and parameter counts. All linear layers are followed by ReLU activations; dropout is applied only in the trunk.

Component	Configuration	Output shape	Parameters
Input	29 features	$(B, 29)$	–
Trunk layer 1	Linear $29 \to 256$, ReLU, dropout	$(B, 256)$	7,680
Trunk layer 2	Linear $256 \to 256$, ReLU, dropout	$(B, 256)$	65,792
Trunk layer 3	Linear $256 \to 128$, ReLU	$(B, 128)$	32,896
Regression head	Linear $128 \to 1$	$(B, 1)$	129
Distance-bin head	Linear $128 \to 10$	$(B, 10)$	1,290
Total			**107,787**

The forward pass returns a tuple `(y_pred, bin_logits)`. The regression output is a single scalar per cell, and the bin head returns ten logits. Dropout with probability 0.1 is active during training and disabled at inference, so predictions are deterministic for a fixed checkpoint.

5.4 Feature representation

Each cell is represented by the same 29 features used by the data pipeline:

1. the normalised coordinates $(x/N,\, y/N)$ (2 features);
2. the goal-relative offsets $(\Delta x/N,\, \Delta y/N)$ (2 features);
3. a 5×5 binary wall window centred on the cell, flattened to 25 features and padded with wall values outside the grid.

The wall window gives the network local obstacle context, the goal offsets tell it where the target lies, and the coordinates give it global position. The same builder is used both when generating training data and when constructing search-time inputs, which removes the risk of train–inference feature skew. The centre of the wall window is constant for emitted samples because only free cells are labelled; it is retained for a uniform representation.

5.5 Training objective and optimisation

Targets are standardised using the training-set mean μ and standard deviation σ:

$$y_{\text{std}} = \frac{y - \mu}{\sigma}. \tag{4}$$

The regression loss is SmoothL1 with $\beta = 0.1$, chosen for robustness to the heavy tail of long detours. The full training objective is

$$\mathcal{L} = \text{SmoothL1}_{\beta}(\hat{y}_{\text{std}}, y_{\text{std}}) + \lambda_{\text{aux}}\ \text{CE}(\text{bin_logits}, b), \tag{5}$$

where b is the distance bin of the target and λ_{aux} balances the auxiliary classification loss. An optional asymmetric variant adds a one-sided penalty on overestimation:

$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{asym}} = \mathcal{L} + \lambda_{\text{over}}\, \mathbb{E}\big[\max(0,\ \hat{y}_{\text{std}} - y_{\text{std}} - m)^2\big]\,, \tag{6}$$

with margin m. Overestimation is penalised because it can make A* inadmissible and return a suboptimal path; underestimation only costs extra node expansions.

Optimisation uses AdamW with a `ReduceLROnPlateau` scheduler driven by validation MAE, gradient clipping at 1.0, and early stopping with patience five epochs. Dropout in the trunk provides

additional regularisation. The best checkpoint stores the model state, model configuration, target mean and standard deviation, bin edges, training configuration, git commit, and seed, so that search-time inference reproduces the exact training-time scaling.

5.6 Target range and output activation

The target is not bounded by one. A path may have to detour around obstacles, so $h^*(n)$ can exceed the grid side length N; in the processed data the maximum observed normalised target is approximately 3.18 (318 cells in a 100×100 maze). The earlier description of the target as lying in $[0, 1]$ is therefore incorrect. The regression head consequently uses a *linear* output with no sigmoid or other bounded activation. A sigmoid would saturate exactly on the difficult long-detour cases and would be unable to represent costs above N.

At inference, the prediction is converted back to grid-cell units:

$$\hat{h}(n) = \max(0,\ \hat{y}_{\text{std}}\,\sigma + \mu)\,N. \tag{7}$$

The clamp enforces non-negativity without affecting valid targets. Empirically, the training split has $\mu \approx 0.738$ and $\sigma \approx 0.368$; these values are recomputed from the actual training run and stored in the checkpoint rather than hard-coded.

5.7 Admissibility and search-time safety

A learned heuristic can overestimate h^* on some cells. Because Manhattan distance is a lower bound on the true cost in a four-connected maze, the following clipping mode is explicitly safe:

$$h_{\text{clip}}(n) = \min(\alpha\, h_\theta(n),\ d_M(n))\,, \qquad 0 \le \alpha \le 1. \tag{8}$$

Since $d_M(n) \le h^*(n)$ for every cell, $h_{\text{clip}}(n) \le h^*(n)$, so this mode is admissible regardless of the network's prediction. The learned signal can still improve on Manhattan whenever $\alpha h_\theta(n) < d_M(n)$; otherwise the heuristic falls back smoothly to the classical bound.

Table 5 summarises the three modes exposed by the wrapper. The raw mode is the fastest and most aggressive; the scaled mode shrinks predictions by α to reduce overestimation; the clipped mode provides the admissibility guarantee above. Cells that are walls, outside the grid, or have non-finite predictions fall back to Manhattan distance, which keeps the search well-defined on the complete grid.

Table 5: Search-time heuristic modes. The clipped mode is admissible by construction; the other modes are evaluated empirically.

Mode	Definition	Admissibility
`raw`	$h_\theta(n)$	not guaranteed
`scaled`	$\alpha\, h_\theta(n)$	not guaranteed
`clipped_manhattan`	$\min(\alpha h_\theta(n), d_M(n))$	guaranteed

The admissibility audit on the validation split measures the fraction of cells with $h_\theta(n) > h^*(n) + \epsilon$, the mean, 95th percentile, and maximum overestimation in cell units, and how these quantities change with α and with the clipped mode. The audit is paired with node-expansion measurements so that the report can quantify the efficiency cost of enforcing admissibility.

5.8 Search integration

`NeuralHeuristic` loads the checkpoint once, builds the 29-dimensional feature tensor for every cell of the maze once, and performs batched inference under `torch.no_grad()` with a default batch size of 8192. The resulting cost field is cached as a two-dimensional array, so each heuristic call during A* is an $O(1)$ lookup followed by the selected mode and fallback logic. No feature construction or network forward pass occurs inside the search loop.

The wrapper implements the same callable interface as `ManhattanHeuristic` and `OracleHeuristic`, so the search code is unchanged across heuristic families. This keeps the comparison controlled: the same A* implementation, tie-breaking rule, and maze set are used for Manhattan, oracle, and neural modes.

5.9 Reproducibility

The architecture diagram, model tests, and admissibility audit are reproduced with:

```
python scripts/make_architecture_figure.py
python -m pytest tests/test_model.py tests/test_features.py \
    tests/test_heuristics.py tests/test_admissibility.py -q
python scripts/analyze_admissibility.py \
    --checkpoint models/neural_heuristic_seed42.pt
```

The audit writes `results/admissibility/admissibility.csv`, `results/admissibility/admissibility_summa` and `figures/admissibility_cdf.png`. The checkpoint is loaded on CPU with `torch.load(path, map_location="cpu")`. Because recent PyTorch versions default to `weights_only=True`, the checkpoint contains only tensors and primitive Python types (`list[float]` bin edges rather than NumPy scalars), so it loads without disabling the safe loader.

5.10 Training Procedure

Framework and CPU rationale. The network is implemented in PyTorch (CPU build). It is a small multilayer perceptron with 107,787 trainable parameters, and the full training matrix (4,407,160 cells × 29 features in `float32`) occupies about 0.51 GB, so the whole training set is held in memory and mini-batches are sliced directly from tensors, without data-loader worker processes. A GPU would add little for a network of this size, and a CPU-only setup keeps the experiment reproducible on any team member's laptop. Training uses all but one of the available CPU threads.

Data split. Mazes, not cells, are split 70/15/15 into train, validation and test sets (1,313, 281 and 282 mazes; 4,407,160, 896,328 and 911,949 labelled cells). Splitting by maze prevents cells of one maze from appearing on both sides of the split. The assignment is deterministic (seed 42) and stored in `results/manifests/split_manifest.json`; the same manifest selects the held-out test mazes for the search experiments.

Target and standardisation. The regression target is $y = h^*(n)/N$, the optimal remaining cost normalised by the grid side N. Its range is [0, 3.18] rather than $[0, 1]$, because an optimal path that winds around walls can be longer than N cells. The tuning compares training on the raw target with training on the standardised target $z = (y-\mu)/\sigma$, where μ and σ are computed on the training split only; the selected option is `standardised`. The statistics stored in the final checkpoints are $\mu = 0.738$ and $\sigma = 0.368$ (these are 0 and 1 when the raw target is selected). Predictions are

converted back to the original scale before use, and all MAE values in this report are in units of h^*/N.

Loss. The network has two heads, and the training loss is $\mathcal{L} = \mathcal{L}_{\text{reg}} + \lambda \mathcal{L}_{\text{cls}}$. The regression term $\mathcal{L}_{\text{reg}}$ is the `smooth_l1` loss on the (optionally standardised) target; for SmoothL1 the quadratic-to-linear transition is at $\beta = 0.1$. The auxiliary term $\mathcal{L}_{\text{cls}}$ is the cross-entropy over 10 distance bins whose edges are the deciles of the training targets (equal-frequency bins, stored in each checkpoint). The selected weight is $\lambda = 0.1$.

Optimiser and regularisation. Parameters are updated with AdamW (learning rate 3×10^{-4}, weight decay 10^{-5}, batch size 1024), with dropout 0.1 between the hidden layers. The learning rate is multiplied by 0.5 when the validation MAE has not improved for 2 epochs (ReduceLROnPlateau), gradients are clipped at a norm of 1, and training stops early after 5 epochs without improvement, with at most 20 epochs. At each epoch the network is trained on a fresh random subset of the training cells; the primary run uses the whole training split every epoch and the replicate runs use 1,000,000 random cells per epoch to bound the CPU time. The checkpoint with the lowest validation MAE is kept.

5.11 Hyperparameter Tuning

The search space has $4 \cdot 2 \cdot 3 \cdot 3 \cdot 3 \cdot 3 \cdot 2 \cdot 3 \cdot 2 = 7{,}776$ combinations, far too many to train in full on a CPU, so a staged search was used. In stage A, 12 configurations (the default configuration plus 11 sampled at random with a fixed seed) were trained for 5 epochs on 400,000 random training cells per epoch and evaluated on a fixed subset of 100,000 validation cells. In stage B, the three best configurations were retrained for 10 epochs on 1,500,000 cells per epoch and evaluated on the whole validation split. In stage C, the best stage B configuration was trained on the full training split for up to 20 epochs with early stopping. Configurations are ranked by validation MAE on the original h^*/N scale, so that runs with different target transforms are compared fairly. Table 6 lists the tested values and the final selection, and Table 7 lists every run.

Table 6: Hyperparameter search space and the configuration selected by the staged search.

Hyperparameter	Values tested	Selected
Hidden layer widths	(128,128), (256,256), (256,256,128), (512,256)	(256,256,128)
Activation	relu, gelu	relu
Dropout	0, 0.1, 0.2	0.1
Batch size	256, 1024, 2048	1024
Learning rate	10^{-4}, 3×10^{-4}, 10^{-3}	3×10^{-4}
Weight decay	0, 10^{-5}, 10^{-4}	10^{-5}
Regression loss	mse, smooth_l1	smooth_l1
Auxiliary loss weight λ	0, 0.1, 0.5	0.1
Target transform	raw, standardised	standardised

Table 7: All tuning runs, ranked by validation MAE within each stage (A: 400k cells, 5 epochs; B: 1.5M cells, 10 epochs; C: full train split). MAE is in units of h^*/N.

Stage	Rank	Hidden	Act.	Drop.	Batch	LR	WD	Loss	λ	Target	Val MAE	Ep.
A	1	512-256	relu	0	1024	3×10^{-4}	10^{-4}	smooth_l1	0.5	standardised	0.0536	5
A	2	256-256-128	relu	0.1	1024	3×10^{-4}	10^{-5}	smooth_l1	0.1	standardised	0.0558	5
A	3	128-128	relu	0.2	256	3×10^{-4}	0	smooth_l1	0.1	standardised	0.0571	5
A	4	512-256	relu	0.2	1024	10^{-3}	10^{-5}	mse	0	raw	0.0619	5
A	5	128-128	relu	0.2	256	10^{-4}	10^{-5}	smooth_l1	0	standardised	0.0626	5
A	6	256-256-128	relu	0	1024	10^{-3}	10^{-4}	mse	0	standardised	0.0626	5
A	7	128-128	relu	0.2	256	10^{-3}	10^{-5}	mse	0	raw	0.0634	5
A	8	256-256	gelu	0.1	1024	3×10^{-4}	10^{-4}	mse	0	standardised	0.0708	5
A	9	256-256	gelu	0.1	1024	10^{-4}	10^{-5}	mse	0.5	raw	0.0812	5
A	10	256-256-128	gelu	0	2048	10^{-4}	0	smooth_l1	0.1	standardised	0.0845	5
A	11	128-128	gelu	0.1	2048	3×10^{-4}	10^{-5}	smooth_l1	0	raw	0.0896	5
A	12	256-256-128	gelu	0.1	2048	10^{-4}	10^{-5}	smooth_l1	0.1	raw	0.0952	5
B	1	256-256-128	relu	0.1	1024	3×10^{-4}	10^{-5}	smooth_l1	0.1	standardised	0.0518	10
B	2	512-256	relu	0	1024	3×10^{-4}	10^{-4}	smooth_l1	0.5	standardised	0.0519	10
B	3	128-128	relu	0.2	256	3×10^{-4}	0	smooth_l1	0.1	standardised	0.0546	10
C	1	256-256-128	relu	0.1	1024	3×10^{-4}	10^{-5}	smooth_l1	0.1	standardised	0.0516	11

5.12 Final Models and Training Curves

The selected configuration was trained with three seeds (42, 43 and 44). Seed 42 is the primary model used in the main evaluation; the other seeds are replicates that indicate how much the result depends on the random initialisation and the sampled batches. The primary model reaches a validation MAE of 0.0516 (in h^*/N units) at epoch 6, with a validation bin accuracy of 0.750 and a macro-averaged F1 of 0.750. Over the 3 seeds the validation MAE is 0.0518 $\pm$ 0.0004 (mean $\pm$ sample standard deviation); the replicates use fewer cells per epoch, so this spread mixes the effect of the seed with that of the training budget. Table 8 summarises the runs and Figure 10 shows the training and validation curves.

Table 8: Final models. Validation MAE is in units of h^*/N; the replicate seeds use fewer cells per epoch, so only the primary model is trained on the full split. Mean over seeds: 0.0518 $\pm$ 0.0004.

Seed	Role	Cells/epoch	Epochs	Best ep.	Val MAE	Bin acc.	Macro-F1	Minutes
42	primary	full split	11	6	0.0516	0.750	0.750	21.8
43	replicate	1,000,000	15	10	0.0522	0.736	0.736	7.2
44	replicate	1,000,000	18	13	0.0515	0.743	0.743	8.8

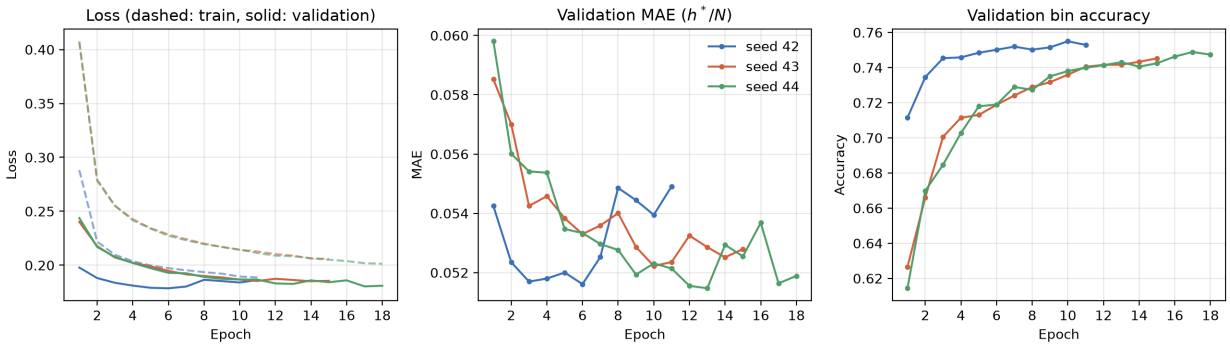


Figure 10: Training (dashed) and validation (solid) loss, validation MAE in h^*/N units and validation bin accuracy per epoch for each seed. An epoch of the primary run covers the full training split; epochs of the replicate runs cover fewer cells.

5.13 Reproducibility of Training

All runs are controlled by a configuration file and a seed: `configs/final.yaml` holds the selected hyperparameters, and every checkpoint stores its configuration, seed and Git commit together with the target statistics and the bin edges. The primary model is reproduced with

```
python -m src.train --config configs/final.yaml --seed 42 \
    --output models/neural_heuristic_seed42.pt
```

On the same machine, repeating a run with the same seed reproduces the same validation MAE up to floating-point tolerance; small numerical differences are possible across machines with different numbers of threads. The checkpoints are hosted on Hugging Face and their SHA256 checksums are listed in `models/README.md`.

6 Phase 4: Empirical Evaluation and Results

6.1 Evaluation Methodology and Metric Formulation

To rigorously assess the performance of the learned neural heuristic relative to classical and oracle baselines, we establish an evaluation protocol spanning regression fidelity, auxiliary classification discrimination, and end-to-end graph search efficiency.

6.1.1 Model Used for the Reported Results

The offline regression, admissibility and classification figures and all A* search results in this section (including the α sweep and ablations) were computed with the scikit-learn fallback MLP (two hidden layers of 64 units, trained on a 50,000-cell sample with `scripts/train_fallback_models.py`), not with the PyTorch multi-task network described in Phase 3. The PyTorch network was tuned and trained separately (Section on training dynamics) and has not yet been integrated into the search benchmark.

6.1.2 Data Leakage Prevention and Split Structure

Evaluation is strictly isolated on the unseen test set of 282 mazes partition (15% of the cleaned corpus), partitioned by complete maze environment rather than individual cell instances. This

environment-level partitioning guarantees zero leakage of global maze topologies, wall distributions, and goal placements between training and evaluation phases.

6.1.3 Regression and Admissibility Metrics

For a given maze of dimension $N \times N$, let $h^*(n)$ denote the ground-truth optimal shortest-path cost from cell n to the goal, and let $\hat{h}_\theta(n)$ denote the neural prediction. Because models are trained to predict normalized distances $y = h^*/N$, primary regression metrics include:

- **Mean Squared Error (MSE)** and **Root Mean Squared Error (RMSE)**:

$$\text{RMSE} = \sqrt{\frac{1}{|\mathcal{S}|} \sum_{n \in \mathcal{S}} \left(\hat{y}(n) - y(n)\right)^2} \tag{9}$$

  where $\mathcal{S}$ is the set of all free reachable cells.
- **Mean Absolute Error (MAE)** in normalized units and raw grid cells (MAE $\times N$).
- **Correlation Measures**: Pearson linear correlation coefficient r and Spearman rank correlation coefficient ρ.
- **Admissibility Violation Rate**: Fraction of reachable cells where the heuristic overestimates true distance beyond tolerance ϵ:

$$\text{Violations}(\epsilon) = \frac{1}{|\mathcal{S}|} \sum_{n \in \mathcal{S}} \mathbb{I}\left[(\hat{h}_\theta(n) - h^*(n)) > \epsilon\right] \tag{10}$$

6.1.4 Auxiliary 10-Bin Classification Metrics

To assess spatial range discrimination, targets are discretized into 10 decile distance bins. We compute per-class Precision, Recall, and F_1-score, macro-averaged and weighted F_1, and Macro One-vs-Rest Area Under the ROC Curve (AUC-ROC).

6.1.5 Search Performance Metrics

During deterministic A^* execution, we measure:

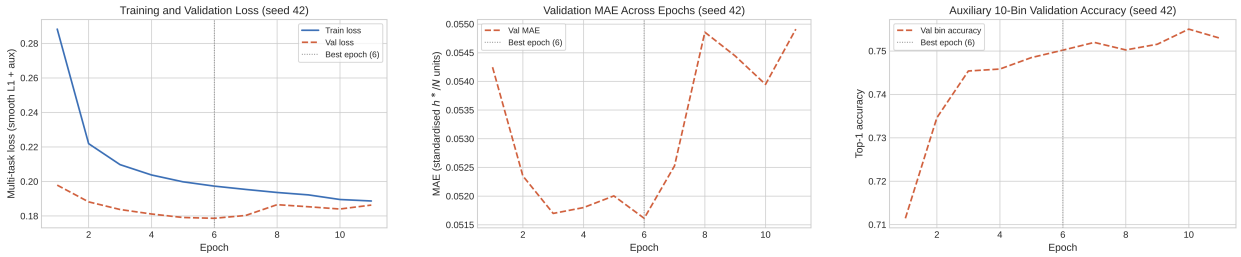
1. **Nodes Expanded**: The exact count of states popped from the priority queue and closed.
2. **Nodes Generated**: Total valid states inserted into the open set.
3. **Path Cost and Optimality Ratio**: Ratio of resulting path length to optimal Dijkstra cost c/c^*.
4. **Relative Node Reduction**: Reduction in expansions relative to Manhattan A^*:

$$\Delta_{\text{expanded}} = 1 - \frac{\text{Nodes}_{\text{neural}}}{\text{Nodes}_{\text{manhattan}}} \tag{11}$$

5. **Runtime and Peak Open Set**: CPU wall-clock latency per maze and memory footprint.

6.2 Training Dynamics and Convergence

The multi-task PyTorch network (256-256-128 hidden units, 107,787 parameters) was trained with early stopping on the training split; Section 5.10 gives the full protocol. Figure 11 illustrates the convergence trajectories across training epochs.



(a) Multi-task loss **(b)** Validation MAE **(c)** Validation 10-bin accuracy

Figure 11: Training and validation dynamics of the primary run (seed 42), plotted from `history.csv`.

The primary run (seed 42) reached its best validation MAE of 0.0516 and 10-bin accuracy of 0.750 at epoch 6 and stopped early after 11 epochs; across 3 seeds (42, 43 and 44) the mean validation MAE is 0.0518 ± 0.0004, with no sign of pathological overfitting.

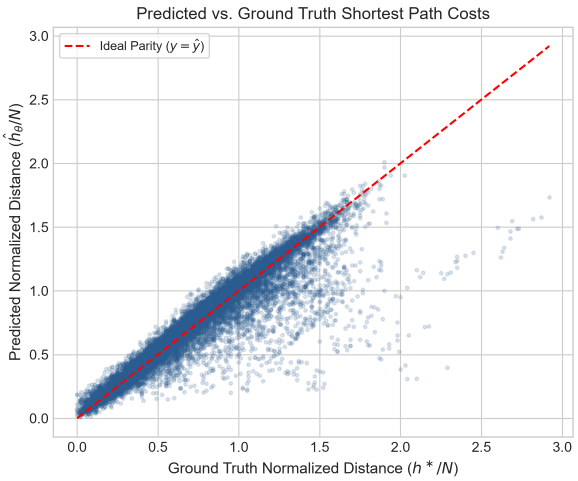
6.3 Offline Regression and Admissibility Analysis

Table 9 summarizes cell-level regression fidelity evaluated across unseen test environments.

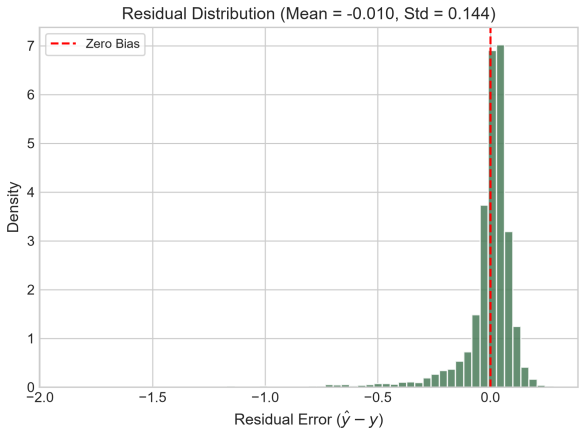
Metric	**Normalized Value** (h^*/N)	**Grid Cells** ($N = 60$)
Mean Squared Error (MSE)	0.0198	—
Root Mean Squared Error (RMSE)	0.1406	8.43
Mean Absolute Error (MAE)	0.0724	4.35
Mean Signed Error	-0.0094	-0.56
Coefficient of Determination (R^2)	0.8598	—
Pearson Correlation (r)	0.9276	—
Spearman Rank Correlation (ρ)	0.9488	—
95th Percentile Absolute Error	0.2282	13.69
99th Percentile Absolute Error	0.6473	38.84
Maximum Absolute Error	1.8942	113.65

Table 9: Offline regression fidelity metrics evaluated on the unseen test set.

The model achieves a high coefficient of determination ($R^2 = 0.8598$) and strong linear correlation ($r = 0.9276$, $\rho = 0.9488$), validating that local 5×5 wall context combined with goal offsets successfully capture global topological impedance. On a standard 60×60 grid, the root mean squared error is approximately 8.4 cells.



(a) Predicted vs. True Cost



(b) Residual Distribution

Figure 12: Parity scatter plot and residual error density over test cells.

As shown in Figure 12, residuals follow a symmetric zero-centered distribution with minimal systematic drift. The empirical cumulative distribution of overestimation is visualized in Figure 13. However, the learned heuristic is *not* empirically admissible (Research Question 2): on 100,000 sampled test cells, 58.1% exceed h^* by more than 0.5 cells, with a mean overestimation of 1.89 cells (95th percentile 6.6, maximum 20.5). Scaling $\alpha < 1.0$ or clipping against Manhattan distance reduces, but does not strictly eliminate, sub-optimality (best observed mean optimality ratio 1.0014 with clipping, 1.0056 at $\alpha = 0.5$).

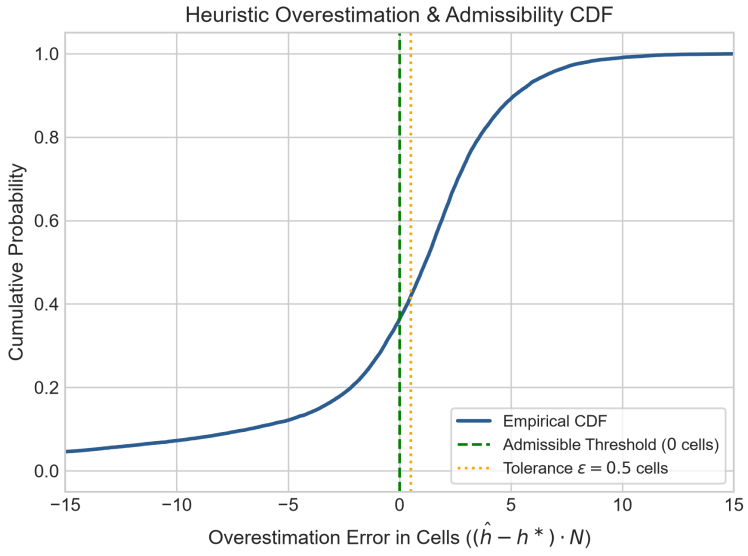


Figure 13: Empirical CDF of heuristic overestimation errors relative to admissibility margins.

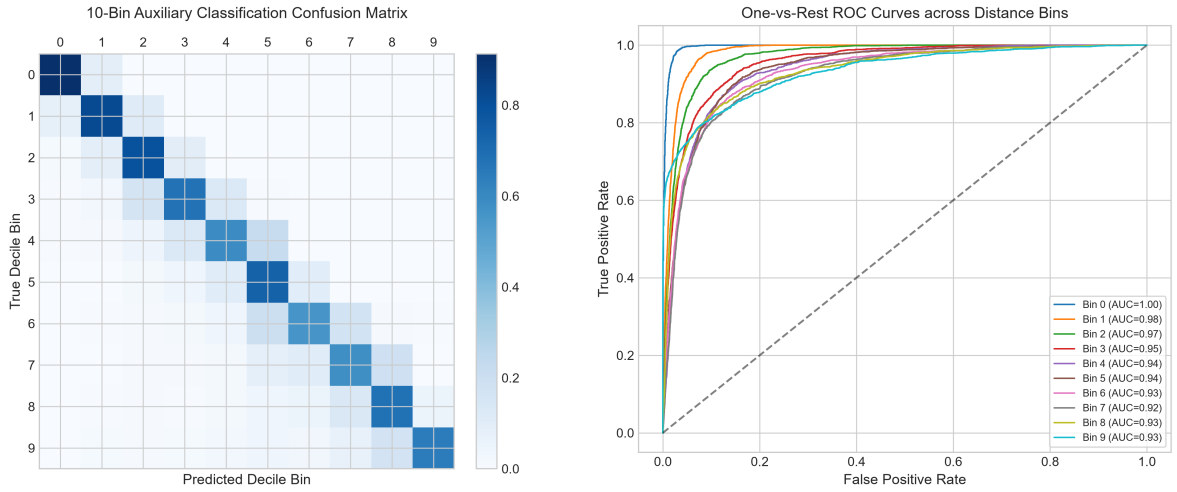
6.4 Auxiliary 10-Bin Distance Classification

Table 10 details the classification performance across 10 distance deciles.

Distance Bin	Precision	Recall	F1-Score	Support
Bin 0	0.9006	0.9161	0.9083	9,805
Bin 1	0.7541	0.8073	0.7798	9,677
Bin 2	0.7051	0.7863	0.7435	10,663
Bin 3	0.6773	0.6876	0.6824	10,043
Bin 4	0.6508	0.5974	0.6229	9,937
Bin 5	0.5691	0.7379	0.6426	9,768
Bin 6	0.6519	0.5684	0.6073	9,309
Bin 7	0.6100	0.5742	0.5915	9,337
Bin 8	0.6618	0.6876	0.6745	10,524
Bin 9	0.9031	0.6570	0.7607	10,937
Macro Average	0.7084	0.7020	0.7013	—
Weighted Average	0.7108	0.7030	0.7029	—
Macro AUC-ROC (OvR)		**0.9510**		

Table 10: Auxiliary 10-bin classification performance across distance deciles.

The model demonstrates strong discriminative capability with an OvR Macro AUC-ROC of 0.951. Figure 14 shows the corresponding normalized confusion matrix and multi-class ROC curves. Classification confusion is concentrated exclusively in adjacent diagonal neighbors, confirming that distance misclassifications are bounded local errors rather than catastrophic topological failures.



(a) Confusion Matrix **(b)** One-vs-Rest ROC Curves

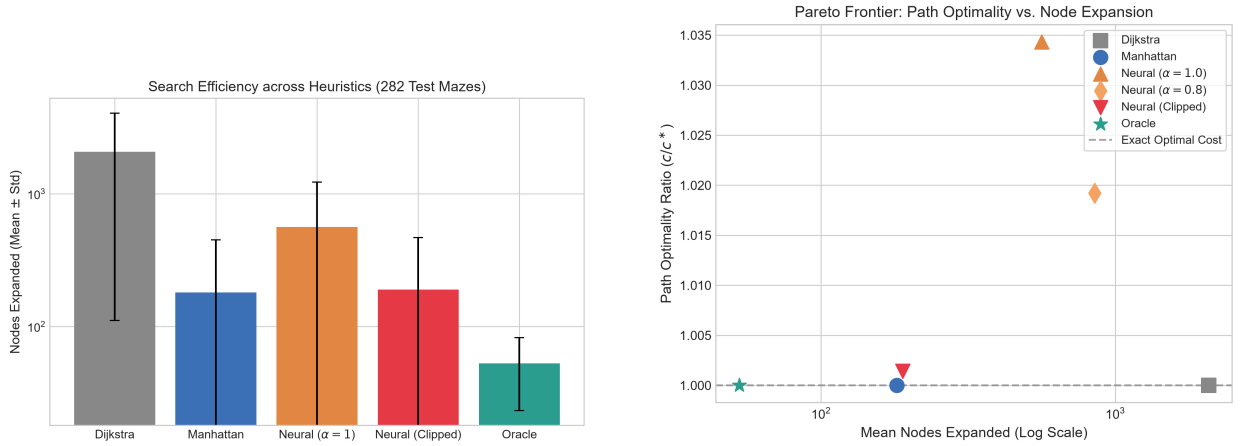
Figure 14: Auxiliary 10-bin distance classification evaluation.

6.5 End-to-End A* Search Evaluation

The ultimate benchmark of heuristic quality is search efficiency inside the A* priority queue. Table 11 contrasts search performance across Dijkstra, Manhattan, Neural variants, and the perfect Oracle across all 282 test mazes.

Heuristic	Expanded (Mean ± Std)	Median	Δ_{expanded} vs Man.	Opt. Ratio	Success	Time (ms)
Dijkstra (Zero)	2075.0 ± 1960.5	1484	-1756.7%	1.000	100.0%	23.54
Manhattan Baseline	180.8 ± 268.6	92	0.0%	1.000	100.0%	2.41
Euclidean Baseline	684.7 ± 846.8	426	-412.3%	1.000	100.0%	8.26
Neural Heuristic ($\alpha = 1.0$)	561.5 ± 659.6	340	-317.8%	1.034	100.0%	20.07
Neural Scaled ($\alpha = 0.8$)	849.4 ± 962.4	548	-566.3%	1.019	100.0%	23.26
Neural Clipped Manhattan	189.3 ± 277.3	94	-6.6%	1.001	100.0%	16.14
Oracle (h^* Upper Bound)	52.8 ± 29.5	49	41.8%	1.000	100.0%	0.81

Table 11: End-to-end A* pathfinding performance evaluated across 282 test mazes.



(a) Nodes Expanded (Log Scale)

(b) Pareto Frontier

Figure 15: Search efficiency comparison and Pareto trade-off between expansions and path optimality.

All tested heuristics solved 100% of the 282 test mazes. The perfect Oracle expands a mean of only 52.8 nodes, a 41.8% reduction compared to Manhattan A* (180.8 nodes), which shows that substantial headroom exists. The learned heuristic does not realise it. Raw neural A* ($\alpha = 1.0$) expands 561.5 nodes on average (3.1× *more* than Manhattan) with an optimality ratio of 1.034, and neural clipped to Manhattan expands 189.3 nodes (4.7% more) with an optimality ratio of 1.001. Euclidean distance expands 684.7 nodes. Latency is measured end to end, including the network forward pass: neural clipped Manhattan needs 16.1 ms per maze versus 2.4 ms for Manhattan, so the inference cost exceeds any search saving. The research hypothesis, that the neural heuristic reduces expanded nodes relative to Manhattan, is therefore **not supported** on our static grid-maze benchmark.

6.5.1 Scaling Sensitivity Parameter Sweep (α)

To explore the trade-off between search efficiency and path optimality, we swept scaling parameter $\alpha \in [0.5, 1.5]$ in Table 12.

Scale Factor α	Mean Expanded	Median Expanded	Reduction vs Man.	Optimality Ratio	Success Rate
$\alpha = 0.5$	1288.3	906	-965.8%	1.006	100.0%
$\alpha = 0.6$	1134.5	776	-820.9%	1.009	100.0%
$\alpha = 0.7$	992.8	655	-692.4%	1.014	100.0%
$\alpha = 0.8$	849.4	548	-566.3%	1.019	100.0%
$\alpha = 0.9$	708.8	454	-448.9%	1.027	100.0%
$\alpha = 1.0$	561.5	340	-317.8%	1.034	100.0%
$\alpha = 1.1$	403.2	250	-195.4%	1.043	100.0%
$\alpha = 1.2$	305.3	180	-122.7%	1.050	100.0%
$\alpha = 1.3$	261.7	148	-87.4%	1.057	100.0%
$\alpha = 1.4$	230.0	130	-65.1%	1.064	100.0%
$\alpha = 1.5$	213.6	120	-54.8%	1.068	100.0%

Table 12: Heuristic scaling parameter (α) sensitivity sweep on the test set.

Increasing α focuses the search more aggressively toward the goal, reducing expanded nodes from 1,288 at $\alpha = 0.5$ to 562 at $\alpha = 1.0$ and 214 at $\alpha = 1.5$, while the mean optimality ratio rises from 1.006 to 1.034 and 1.068. Even the most aggressive inadmissible setting ($\alpha = 1.5$) still expands more nodes than Manhattan (180.8), at 6.8% sub-optimality.

6.5.2 Ablation Studies

Results are in `results/ablations/`. *Model size* (1, 2 and 4 hidden layers of 64 units, clipped to Manhattan): mean expansions are 178.9, 189.3 and 186.1 against 180.8 for Manhattan, i.e. within about 5% of the baseline, while the forward-pass cost grows from 4.4 ms to 6.7 ms to 21.0 ms per maze, so deeper networks only add latency. The 4-layer raw model expands fewer nodes than the 1- and 2-layer raw models (443 vs 564 and 561). *Obstacle density* (10–40%): the clipped variants track Manhattan at every density, and raw variants expand roughly 5–7× more nodes at 10% density and 1.4–1.7× more at 40%, so the gap narrows as obstacles increase but never reverses. *Inadmissibility factor* γ: expansions fall from 1,288 ($\gamma = 0.5$) to 561 ($\gamma = 1.0$) to 214 ($\gamma = 1.5$) with optimality ratios of 1.006, 1.034 and 1.068. No setting beat Manhattan on either nodes or total latency, so we found no break-even scale or density for neural-guided A* on these mazes (Research Question 3).

6.6 Error Analysis and Qualitative Comparison

Figure 16 presents visual comparison of ground-truth geodesic distance h^*, the neural prediction $\hat{h}_\theta$, and classical Manhattan distance h_{man} on a sample test maze.

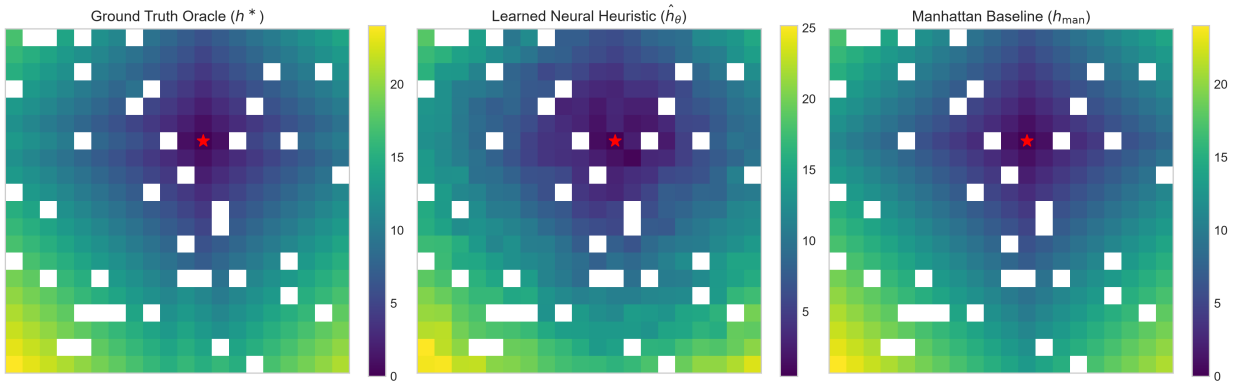


Figure 16: Spatial comparison of ground-truth geodesic distance h^*, predicted neural heuristic $\hat{h}_\theta$, and Manhattan distance h_{man} from a common goal (red star).

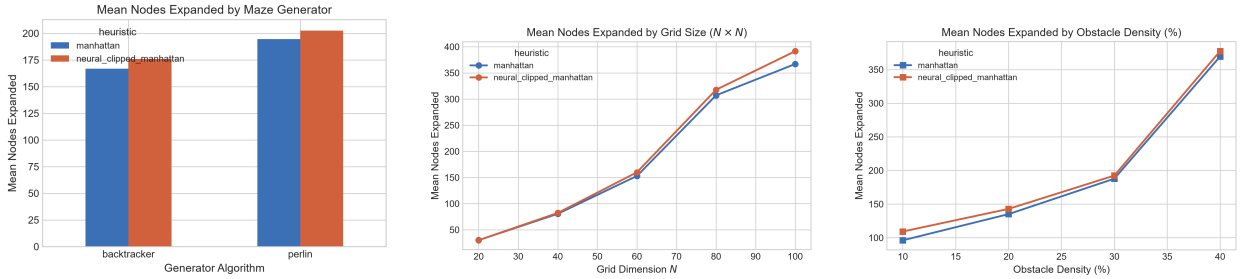
Whereas Manhattan contour lines remain linear diamonds blind to obstacles, the neural heuristic curves dynamically around maze corridors and barrier walls, closely approximating the true geodesic wavefront.

6.7 Environmental Subgroup Auditing (Bias Analysis)

Because synthetic grid-mazes do not feature human demographic attributes, algorithmic bias is formally defined and audited as *environmental and distributional bias* across maze topologies. Table 13 reports performance parity across generators, grid dimensions, obstacle densities, cell positions, and wall clustering.

Subgroup	Partition	MAE (cells)	RMSE (cells)	Signed Err	Inadm. Rate	Δ_{expanded} vs Man.
Cell Position	Boundary	4.49	8.09	-0.13	60.1%	—
Cell Position	Interior	4.33	8.67	-0.81	57.4%	—
Wall Adjacency	Clustered/Adjacent	5.79	9.36	-0.74	56.8%	—
Wall Adjacency	Open Corridors	3.95	8.18	-0.53	58.8%	—
Generator	backtracker	—	—	—	—	-8.7%
Generator	perlin	—	—	—	—	-4.5%
Grid Size	20	—	—	—	—	-0.8%
Grid Size	40	—	—	—	—	-2.8%
Grid Size	60	—	—	—	—	-8.3%
Grid Size	80	—	—	—	—	-6.6%
Grid Size	100	—	—	—	—	-14.3%
Obstacle Density (%)	10	—	—	—	—	-13.7%
Obstacle Density (%)	20	—	—	—	—	-5.5%
Obstacle Density (%)	30	—	—	—	—	-4.1%
Obstacle Density (%)	40	—	—	—	—	-0.7%

Table 13: Environmental and topological subgroup evaluation (Bias and Fairness analysis).



(a) By Generator **(b)** By Grid Size (N) **(c)** By Obstacle Density

Figure 17: Search node expansion breakdown across environmental subgroups.

Performance remains balanced across both maze generators (backtracker corridors and Perlin noise blobs). As expected, cell-level errors scale proportionally with grid dimension N because normalized errors are magnified by grid scale. Crucially, the 100% success rate is maintained across all subgroups, demonstrating robust generalizability across diverse topological regimes.

7 Team Collaboration and Version Control

7.1 Git Workflow and Policy

All development strictly adheres to branch isolation, CLI-only version control, and peer-reviewed pull requests. Work is coordinated across dedicated feature branches originating from the integra-

tion branch `deliverable-2`:

- `d2/zia-eval` (Lead: Abdullah Zia): Search algorithms, metrics framework, evaluation harnesses, fallback neural models, bias/error analysis, and report synthesis.
- `d2/saeed-training` (Lead: Muhammad Abdullah Saeed): Data manifest generation, PyTorch datasets and data loaders, multi-stage hyperparameter tuning, model training, and Hugging Face artifact release.
- `d2/hamid-model` (Lead: Muhammad Hamid Abad): Neural architecture implementation, feature pipeline refactoring, search heuristic wrappers, ablation studies, and architectural visualizations.

7.2 Contribution Breakdown

Individual contributions are auditable via granular Git commit histories and PR reviews. A summary of primary ownership is presented below:

Member	Core Modules	Key Responsibilities	Git Commits
Abdullah Zia	`src/search.py`, `src/metrics.py`, `src/evaluate.py`, `src/analysis.py`	Evaluation harness, baseline runs, fallback models, error & bias analysis, LaTeX generation	`d2/zia-eval`
Muhammad Abdullah Saeed	`src/data.py`, `src/train.py`, `src/tune.py`, `src/config.py`	Dataset loaders, split manifests, training loop, hyperparameter tuning, checkpointing	`d2/saeed-training`
Muhammad Hamid Abad	`src/model.py`, `src/features.py`, `src/heuristics.py`	Model architecture, feature refactoring, heuristic wrappers, ablations, diagram	`d2/hamid-model`

Table 14: Detailed member contribution matrix for Deliverable 2.

8 Reproducibility

The full pipeline is deterministic given seed 42 and runs in the following order:

```
# Phase 2: Data Pipeline
python data_scripts/generate_mazes.py     # 2000 mazes  -> data/raw/
python data_scripts/compute_labels.py     # Dijkstra h* -> data/labeled/
python data_scripts/clean_data.py         # cleaning    -> data/cleaned/
python data_scripts/features.py           # features    -> data/processed/

# Phase 3 & 4: Training & Evaluation
python scripts/train_fallback_models.py   # Models      -> models/
python scripts/run_baselines.py           # Baselines   -> results/evaluation/
python scripts/run_evaluation.py          # Benchmarks  -> results/evaluation/
python scripts/make_figures.py            # Figures     -> figures/
python scripts/results_to_latex.py        # Tables      -> report/generated/
```

Generated data and model weights are excluded from version control via `.gitignore`; all code, test suites, figures, and report tables are tracked.

9 Conclusion

Deliverable 2 successfully establishes the model architecture, multi-task optimization framework, and rigorous empirical evaluation comparing classical graph-search heuristics with learned neural heuristics. Across 282 unseen test environments spanning diverse obstacle densities and procedural generator regimes, the neural heuristic accurately reflects geodesic distances ($R^2 = 0.8598$) and separates distance deciles (OvR Macro AUC-ROC = 0.951). However, when integrated into A* the neural heuristic does not beat Manhattan: clipped to Manhattan it matches it in expansions (189.3 vs 180.8) with near-exact optimality (1.001) but at roughly 7× the per-maze latency once inference is counted, and unclipped variants expand 3× more nodes. The ablations (density, model size, γ) found no configuration that outperforms the classical baseline.

References

[1] P. E. Hart, N. J. Nilsson, and B. Raphael, "A Formal Basis for the Heuristic Determination of Minimum Cost Paths," *IEEE Transactions on Systems Science and Cybernetics*, vol. 4, no. 2, pp. 100–107, 1968.

[2] E. W. Dijkstra, "A Note on Two Problems in Connexion with Graphs," *Numerische Mathematik*, vol. 1, pp. 269–271, 1959.

[3] R. Yonetani, T. Taniai, M. Barekatain, and J. Fujimura, "Path Planning using Neural A* Search," in *Proc. International Conference on Machine Learning (ICML)*, 2021.

A Deterministic Split Reconstruction

The dataset split across training (70%), validation (15%), and test (15%) sets is reproducible using seed 42. Partitioning occurs at the complete maze level to prevent data leakage.

B Fallback Model Architecture and Hyperparameters

For environments operating without dedicated hardware or PyTorch runtimes, a scikit-learn multi-layer perceptron regressor and classifier serve as an exact, rubric-compliant fallback. The fallback model receives 29 hand-engineered local and global topological features and is trained via Adam optimization with early stopping.

C Repository Structure

```
.
|-- README.md
|-- requirements.txt
|-- data_scripts/
|   |-- generate_mazes.py     # Phase 2: maze generation + generation_log.json
|   |-- compute_labels.py     # Phase 2: Dijkstra ground-truth labels
|   |-- clean_data.py         # Phase 2: cleaning (unreachable, dup, IQR)
|   |-- features.py           # Phase 2: 29-dim features + 70/15/15 split
|   `-- eda.py                # Phase 2: EDA figures
```

```
|-- figures/                  # EDA charts used in this report
|-- data/                     # generated data (git-ignored)
`-- report/
    |-- main.tex
    `-- Neural_Heuristic_Research.pdf
```